

**Migration and liberal democracy: the political preferences of those who leave and those who
stay behind**

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Abstract

We used voting data of the US House of Representatives for the period 1871-2014 to estimate the effect of migrants on the political preferences of state and district populations. Our data shows that the share of foreign born residents and, to a lesser extent, the net migration rate, correlates with liberal preferences on social issues and with greater efforts of political representatives to extend the inclusiveness of the democratic franchise and to regulate campaign contributions, lobbying and voter registration. This effect works only on the level of states and increases when a 30 year time lag is applied. Our results suggest that liberal democracy is made by people who easily relocate over longer distances and that the worldwide distribution of liberal democratic and authoritarian societies can partly be explained by selective long distance migration.

Introduction

Over the last two decades many scholarly articles have been devoted to processes named ‘democratic rollback,’ ‘authoritarian reversion’ and ‘constitutional retrogression’. These terms refer either to the development of semi-authoritarian forms of government in countries that abandoned dictatorship during the third wave of democratization, or to the rise of right-wing populist parties in western countries with long democratic traditions (Diamond 2008; Mudde 2013; Freedom House 2019). Examples of the first are Russia, Georgia, Thailand, the Philippines, Venezuela and Nigeria. Examples of the latter are the Front National in France, the Party for Freedom in the Netherlands, the UKIP in the United Kingdom and Donald Trump’s Republican Party in the United States. The optimism of the 1990’s, when many believed in a worldwide hegemony of liberal democracy (Fukuyama 1992), has been overtaken by a more cautious attitude towards the directions that governments take. There is more interest in the factors that affect the level of authoritarianism (Svolik 2008; Levitsky and Way 2010), in the strategies of wanna-be authoritarians (Gerschewski 2013; Landau 2013; Landau 2018; Huq and Ginsburg 2018) and in the taxonomy of regime types that lie between the poles of dictatorship and liberal democracy (Diamond 2002; Carothers 2002; Snyder 2006; Ekman 2009).

A relevant question is whether it is possible to predict which countries or regions will become more and which countries will become less supportive of authoritarian rule over time. A good starting point is the modernization hypothesis, which predicts that countries that progress on the socioeconomic scale will be more likely to become stable liberal democracies than countries that do not (Lipset 1959; Burkhart and Lewis-Beck 1994; Przeworski and Limongi 1997; Epstein et al 2006). Once societies become industrialized, urbanized, wealthy and educated, cultural values change in a predictable direction. The new values (more secular and more postmaterialist than in the premodern condition) are conducive to the success of liberal democracy (Welzel, Inglehart and Klingemann 2003; Inglehart 2005). The route to liberal democracy can be hampered by all sorts of

events that are perceived as threats to people's existence, such as war, economic recessions or terrorist attacks. As people's feelings of insecurity increase, their values tend to become more conservative and their preference for more authoritarian forms of government will grow (Inglehart and Baker 2000; Inglehart, Moaddel and Tessler 2006; Billet, Meuleman and De Witte 2014; Funke et al 2016; Algan et al 2017; Dijkstra, Poelman and Rodríguez-Pose 2019; Guiso et al 2019). The development of values within modernizing countries does not follow the same trajectory everywhere, as cultural histories exert an enduring influence (Inglehart and Baker 2000). Modernization theory in its current form is able to explain the differences in liberal democracy between rich and poor countries (socioeconomic development), the absence of democracy in the Arab world (high average income is not the result of the typical processes of industrialization and urbanization), and all sorts of right-wing populism (increasing distress for certain segments of the population due to economic or other setbacks). What it doesn't predict is, of course, which countries will see social-economic progress and which countries won't.

A second theory, one that can be seen as a reaction on modernization theory, takes the emergence of 'inclusive' institutions as the fundamental cause of successful democracy. This theory, for which the name 'critical juncture hypothesis' has been used (Acemoglu, Johnson, Robinson and Yared, 2007), postulates that both socio-economic development and democracy are caused by the emergence of inclusive institutions that put a check on the predatory behaviour of elites and that stimulate individuals to invest in technological and other sorts of progress (North and Thomas 1973; North 1981; Acemoglu, Johnson and Robinson 2005-2). To explain why some countries are rich and democratic while others are poor and undemocratic, one has to find 'critical junctures' in history when elites were more or less forced to concede power to non-elite groups. Barrington Moore, an early proponent, argued in his 1966 book 'The Social Origins of Dictatorship and Democracy' that democracy first succeeded in those places where feudalism was most decisively defeated in earlier periods. It has also been argued that the start of the Atlantic trade, leading to a transfer of power

from monarchs to merchants, can be seen as a critical juncture that benefitted the formation of inclusive institutions in Northwestern Europe (Acemoglu, Johnson and Robinson 2005-1). Using similar arguments, the lack of growth and democracy in many formerly colonised countries has been attributed to the fact that colonial powers set up extractive institutions that were durably detrimental to political and economical development. Only in colonies where colonists settled themselves, mainly in areas with low levels of parasite stress, inclusive institutions were created (Acemoglu, Johnson and Robinson 2001). One of the predictions of this theory is that the introduction of democracy, being an inclusive institution in itself, leads to more growth in GDP per capita. This hypothesis has been tested for countries that became democratic in the period after 1960 and some of the studies found significant positive effects indeed (Papaioannou and Siourounis 2008; Acemoglu, Naidu, Restrepo and Robinson 2019; but see Barro 1996). The critical juncture hypothesis explains why in the long run economic growth and democracy are correlated, but it doesn't explain why worldwide so many people vote for politicians with authoritarian agenda's.

A third perspective sees culture as the main factor that determines the success of liberal democracy. Most attention has been given to a number of cultural traits that are summarized under the term 'social capital' (Almond and Verba 1963; Coleman 1988; Putnam 1993). Social capital is notoriously hard to define and there is no single way to measure it (Fine 2002; Haynes 2009) but in the definition of Robert Putnam it includes (1) civic engagement; (2) political equality; (3) solidarity, trust and tolerance; and (4) social structures of coöperation. High levels of social capital are predictive of a range of positive outcomes, such effective government (Putnam 1993; Rice 2001; Pierce, Lovrich Jr and Moon Jr 2002), economic development (Helliwell and Putnam 1995; Beugelsdijk and Van Schaik 2005) and health (Kawachi, Kennedy and Glass 1999; Poortinga 2006; Yip et al 2007). A second cultural trait that has been found to correlate positively with liberal democracy is protestantism, either measured by the number of protestants in a country or by the amount of protestant missionary work that has been done in a non-protestant country (Bollen and

Jackman 1985; Treisman 2000; Tusalem 2009; Woodberry 2012). Protestantism, at least in many of its historical forms, stresses the equality of all believers, encourages people to form horizontal relationships and promotes religious toleration. Obviously, these aspects of protestantism seem to fit well with the definition of social capital. A third cultural trait that has been found to correlate positively with successful liberal democracy is individualism, although the relationship of individualism with social capital is not immediately evident. Given equal socioeconomic development, more individualistic countries are more often stable democracies (Shin, Chey and Kim 1989; Gorodnichenko and Roland 2015). Using the cultural perspective one can predict where liberal democracy will do well given the current level of social capital, protestantism or individualism, but there is no clear explanation for the regional or national increases or decreases of social capital.

A fourth theory, the pathogen prevalence hypothesis, sees parasite stress as a fundamental factor affecting government type. The basic assumption is that humans have developed a behavioral immune system that helps them to minimize contact with contaminated strangers and other sources of disease (Faulkner et al 2004; Schaller 2006; Ackerman et al 2018). The affective experience associated with it is disgust (Haidt et al 1994; Schaller 2015). Micro-level studies have found evidence for the positive correlation between the subjective perception of infection risk and, among others, ethnocentrism and xenophobia (Faulkner et al 2004; Navarrete and Fessler 2006; Navarrete, Fessler and Eng 2007), social conformism (Murray and Schaller 2012; Wu and Chamg 2012), social conservatism (Inbar, Pizarro and Bloom 2009; Helzer and Pizarro 2011; but see Tybur et al 2010), opposition to immigration (Aaroe, Petersen and Arceneaux 2017) and negative response to people who are old, physically disabled, disfugered, black or obese (Park, Faulkner & Schaller, 2003; Park, Schaller & Crandall, 2007; Duncan & Schaller, 2009; Ackerman et al 2009; Makhanova, Miller and Maner 2015; Van Leeuwen en Petersen 2018). On the level of societies, it has been found that countries with a historically higher prevalence of parasitic diseases are more collectivistic (Fincher

et al 2008), more authoritarian (Thornhill et al 2009; Murray, Schaller and Suedfeld 2013) and more traditionalistic (Tybur et al 2016). In other words, when confronted with high risks of contamination, people get more socially conservative, and this heightened social conservatism attributes to heightened levels of authoritarianism and collectivism on country level. This hypothesis not only explains variation in democratic practice worldwide, but also the tendency of right-wing authoritarians to stigmatize members of out-groups as dirty and contaminated, and the importance that is given to the concept of 'purity' in anthropology and psychology (Douglas 2003; Graham, Haidt and Nosek 2009).

While these four perspectives on the structural preconditions for liberal democracy are different, there are some themes connecting them. The first theme is social conservatism, which according to the modernization hypothesis and the pathogen prevalence hypothesis is something that has to be overcome before liberal democracy can succeed. Both hypotheses also state that existential threat, in a variety of forms, is conducive to social conservatism and thus detrimental to liberal democracy. The second theme is harder to define but might be described as the emergence of associations of genetically unrelated people who are able to successfully wrestle power from the powers that be. In modernization theory we find these groups among urban workers who have left much of their kin in rural communities and who organize themselves to increase their standing on the social ladder. In the critical juncture hypothesis we find these groups in the medieval burghers and the bourgeoisie. In the cultural perspective we find them represented in American immigrants, who left their kin in Europe and joined protestant churches and other associations, thereby becoming the very definition of social capital. And in the pathogen prevalence theory we do not find such associations at all, as people in regions with high levels of parasitic stress are locked up in close-knit kin groups to avoid starvation.

Given the existing theories and all the evidence collected in favour of them, we consider it a logical step to introduce another element that will help to explain authoritarianism and liberal democracy: migration. The argument can be summarized as follows: **(1)** right-wing populist movements and wannabe autocrats rely on the support of social conservatives, while liberal democracy finds most of its support among social progressives; **(2)** social conservatives differ dispositionally from social progressives; **(3)** the typical disposition of social progressives correlates positively with the typical disposition of migrants; **(4)** therefore, democratic retrogression is to be found in regions with little or no migrant stock, while democratic progression occurs mainly in regions with substantial influx of migrants.

To get here, we will do the following. First we summarize the literature on the political spectrum and the place of social conservatism in it. Next we will discuss the relationship between individual differences and social conservatism, the relationship between anti-democratic attitudes and social conservatism, the relationship between migration and social conservatism and the differences between social progressivism and democracy.

Subsequently, we will present an analysis of panel data for the period 1871-2014 to study the relationship between voting behaviour of American congressmen and the size of the migrant stock in their states. In line with current research on the dimensions of the political spectrum, we will look at the both correlation between migration and social issues and the correlation between migration and economic issues. After that we will present a similar analysis for the period 1981-2014 in which we do not use the state but the smaller congressional voting district as our unit of analysis. Lastly, we return to the level of states and present an analysis of the correlation between the migrant stock of states and the votes of their representatives on a specific set of issues that are directly related to the development of American democracy.

Social conservatism and the political spectrum

Many studies in political science have applied a simple left/right or liberal/conservative dichotomy to describe the variance of political stances (Downs 1957; Bobbio 1996; Jost et al. 2003; Haidt 2012). Starting with Leonard Ferguson, who used factor analysis to determine the dimensionality of the political spectrum, it has become clear that a unidimensional spectrum leaves a lot of variance in political opinion unexplained (Ferguson 1939; Ferguson 1973). Since then, many studies have found that twodimensional spectra, in which one of the dimensions is defined as social or cultural conservatism, have higher predictive value than onedimensional spectra (Eysenck 1954; Lipset 1959; Douglas and Wildavsky 1983; Altemeyer 1998; Duckitt 2001; Ashton et al. 2005; Zumbrennen and Gangl 2008; Crowson 2009; Gerber et al. 2010; Feldman and Johnston 2014; Federico and Malka 2018). Twodimensionality with one dimension indicating social conservatism is also found in cross-cultural psychology, for example by Shalom Schwartz's Theory of Basic Human Values (Schwartz 1992; Schwartz 1994). His value system has two underlying dimensions, namely openness to change vs conservation and self-enhancement vs self-transcendence, of which the first one correlates with social conservatism (Ashton et al. 2005; Schwartz et al. 2014). Harry Triandis' two dimensional model of culture (Singelis et al. 1995) has been found to converge with that of Schwartz. Vertical collectivism in Triandis model correlates with Schwartz's conservation values tradition and conformity, while horizontal individualism in Triandis' model correlates with Schwartz's openness to change value self-direction (Oishi 1998).

All these twodimensional models, based on different approaches of culture and politics, strongly suggest that social conservatism is one of the two basic dimensions of the political spectrum. The other dimension has been labeled, among others, 'antihumanitarianism/atheism vs humanitarianism/religionism' (Ferguson 1973), 'tough-mindedness vs tender-mindedness' (Eysenck 1954), 'economic conservatism vs economic liberalism' (Lipset 1959; Gerber et al 2010; Feldman and Johnston 2014; Federico and Malka 2018), 'low group vs high group' (Douglas and Wildavsky 1983), 'self-enhancement vs self-transcendence' (Schwartz 1992; Schwartz 1994), 'vertical

individualism vs horizontal collectivism' (Singelis et al. 1995) and 'high social dominance orientation vs low social dominance orientation' (Altemeyer 1998; Duckitt 2001). It is not the aim of this study to find out if these definitions of the 'other' dimension all point to the same underlying reality, although one might argue that this is indeed the case. For the present study, which uses political data from the United States, it is important to recognize the difference between social/cultural issues on the one hand, and issues that have to do with capitalism, free markets, the size of government, redistribution, and taxation on the other hand.

Social conservatism and individual differences

One of the things that have become more clear over the years is that social conservatives differ dispositionally from social progressives. Social conservatism correlates with political and non-political psychometric scales such as intolerance of ambiguity, dogmatism, integrative complexity, uncertainty avoidance, need for cognitive closure, personal need for order and, as discussed before, right-wing authoritarianism (Jost et al 2003). It correlates positively with Big Five trait openness to experience and negatively with Big Five trait conscientiousness (Carney et al 2008; Gerber et al 2010; Sibley, Osborne and Duckitt 2012), and predicts the way people play games in which exploratory behaviour is either rewarded or punished. Progressives explore more, while conservatives better remember explorations that went wrong (Shook and Fazio 2009). When presented with collages of positive and negative images (cute pets, happy faces, vomit, houses on fire) conservatives give more attention to the negative images (Dodd et al 2012). In general, it has been argued that conservatives react stronger to negative stimuli (Hibbing, Smith and Alford 2014). It must be noted that many of these studies work with a simple dichotomy conservatism/liberalism, which means that it is difficult to split the social and economic dimension. Nevertheless, the questionnaires to measure conservatism contain many items referring to social issues. Furthermore, there are many indicators that social conservatism is directly related to genetics and human physiology (Alford, Funk and Hibbing 2005; Amodio et al 2007; Kanai et al 2011; Jost and Amodio

2012). Supporting the genetic/physiological origin of the individual variations in social conservatism is the finding that the behaviour of young children was found to be predictive of their conservatism in later stages of life (Block and Block 2005). Because of the genetic factors playing a role in individual differences in social conservatism, it is safe to say that the dichotomy between social conservatism and social progressivism is part of the human condition.

Social conservatism and anti-democracy

Like the modernization hypothesis and the pathogen prevalence hypothesis, the hypothesis tested in this article relies on the assumption that social conservatives exert a negative influence on the development of liberal democracy. This might be a questionable claim, since both social progressives and social conservatives have been responsible for authoritarian regimes during the twentieth century. Indeed, many have argued that authoritarianism is a value free concept that can exist in both a left wing and a right wing variant (Shils 1954; Eysenck 1954; Ray 1983; Greenberg and Jonas 2003). Nevertheless, it can at least be argued that while social progressives and social conservatives have both supported authoritarian forms of government, the push to introduce democracy and to make it more inclusive has mostly come from groups and individuals that were on the socially progressive (but not necessarily economically progressive) side of the political spectrum. One can think of the Quakers who introduced religious tolerance in Pennsylvania, the Founding Fathers who wrote the founding documents of the United States, the French members of the Third Estate who took the Tennis Court Oath, the 19th century European liberals who wrested power from their monarchs, the 19th century abolitionists who brought equal rights one step closer, the Social Democrats from Germany and other European countries who fought for universal suffrage, the suffragettes who helped to bring the vote to the other half of the population, the Russian activists who wrested power from the Tsar and set up democratic bodies before the Bolsheviks staged their coup, the activists in the Civil Rights movement who fought racial discrimination in voting, and all the individuals who went on the streets more recently in countries

like Russia, China, Egypt, Turkey, Hong Kong and Poland to demand democracy and civil liberties. And while the examples of action by socially progressive groups in favour of more inclusive democracy abound, it is harder to find examples where groups of people more social conservative than their average countrymen made similar contributions to a more tolerant and inclusive democracy. The organization of political parties by 19th and 20th century Catholics might count as an example, as it helped to make western democracies more inclusive. On the other hand, the history and the organizational structure of the Catholic Church does not suggest too much affinity with the tenets of liberal democracy.

The differences between social conservatives and social progressives with regards to democracy are not only found in history but also in psychological research. The most widely used psychometric scale to measure authoritarian submission is Robert Altemeyer's Right Wing Authoritarianism (RWA) scale (Altemeyer 1981, 1988, 1998), which contains questions on the typical items that distinguish social conservatives from social progressives (homosexuality, feminism, abortion, following God's laws, preference for traditional values) and questions that distinguish authoritarians from non-authoritarians (submission to authorities, desire for strong leaders that are followed in unity, censorship, limiting free speech, eliminating the troublemakers, punishing the nonconformists). The high internal consistency of his questionnaire indicates that social conservatism and RWA are closely related constructs, a conclusion found as well when using other questionnaires that measure social conservatism (Altemeyer 1998; Duckitt 2001; Duriez, Van Hiel and Kossowska 2005). Attempts to construct scales measuring Left Wing Authoritarianism have failed, or at least the researchers who constructed these scales failed to find substantial numbers of people who combined left wing ideology with submission towards revolutionary leaders and aggression towards non-revolutionaries (Altemeyer 1996; Van Hiel, Duriez and Kossowska 2006). As far as there exists any substantial group that deserves the label Left Wing Authoritarian, those are people who combine social conservatism with a preference for a large role of the government in economic life. These people score high on Altemeyers RWA scale and can be found, for example, in

ex-communist Eastern European countries where large government has become part of the tradition. What their presence mainly underscores is that social and economic conservatism form rather independent dimensions (De Regt, Mortelmans en Smits 2011).

Social conservatism and migration

Studies on migration and personality have found that Big Five personality traits openness to experience and extraversion predict migration (Silventoinen et al, 2007; Camperio Ciani et al 2007; Jokela 2009; Camperio Ciani & Capiluppi 2010), the intention to migrate (Paulauskaitė, Šeibokaitė and Endriulaitienė 2010; Canache et al 2013), successful adjustment to international work assignments (Huang, Chi and Lawler 2005) and job-related relocation readiness (Otto and Dalbert 2012). The effects of openness and extraversion seem to be slightly different, for example it has been found that extraversion predicts within-state migration in the United States while openness to experience predicts between-state migration (Jokela 2009). In a study where South American subjects were asked about their emigration intentions, it was found that for the higher educated respondents openness to experience was the stronger predictor, while for lower educated respondents extraversion was stronger (Canache et al 2013; see also Paulauskaitė, Šeibokaitė and Endriulaitienė 2010). In some studies a negative effect of agreeableness or a related construct ('affiliation motive') was found (Jokela 2009; Boneva et al 1998). Effects of neuroticism and conscientiousness are either weak or insignificant and do not always point in the same direction. These results are relevant for this study because within the Big Five framework, openness to experience is the strongest predictor of progressive political ideology (positively) and Right Wing Authoritarianism (negatively). Extraversion has been found to have a negligible relationship with ideology, although in some studies it predicted economic conservatism (Gerber et al 2010; Caprara et al. 1999). But while extraversion's relationship with ideology is absent or limited, it is a predictor of attending and speaking at political meetings, volunteering for campaigns and engaging in political discussion (Mondak et al. 2010; Gerber et al. 2011).

The relationship between migration and social progressivism finds some support as well in studies that found a higher frequency of the long alleles for the dopamine D4 receptor (DRD4) in migratory populations (Chen et al. 1999). This genetic variant has been found to predict novelty seeking, a trait that includes exploratory excitability, impulsiveness, extravagance and disorderliness (Ebstein et al. 1996; Benajamin et al 1996; Munafò et al. 2008). These traits seems to capture the traits of a typical social progressive better than the typical social conservative, and one study indeed revealed a correlation between DRD4 and social progressivism (Settle et al 2010). It must be remarked that this study concerned just asked respondents to rate themselves on a single conservative-liberal dimension, thus mixing up social and economic conservatism.

Democracy and social progressivism

The citizens of ancient Athens built a democratic society that allowed slavery and denied women the vote. Modern observers can therefore conclude that Athens was an imperfect democracy, but this might be a wrong assumption. Historically, democracy doesn't seem to be the result of humanitarian impulses. Leeson (2007) describes how pirates of the Caribbean of the 17th and 18th century developed advanced forms of democracy on board of their ships, including the separation of powers and a system of social security. These pirates, who had often fled trading ships where they were treated badly, were a scourge for others, but among themselves they were equals in an arrangement that Max Weber has labeled 'warrior communism.' This emergence of proto-democracy among armed men with a love of liberty has been found as well, for example, among the slave-trading Cossacks of southern Russia, many of them being refugees from the feudal estates in the north (Hindus 1946), among American youth gangs (Sanchez-Jankowski 1991) and in outlaw motorcycle clubs (Quinn & Shane Koch 2003). These groups are democratic because their members will never allow their leaders to act like tyrants, which doesn't mean that these members do not aspire to be tyrants themselves. It is therefore not that remarkable that groups who fought for their own democratic rights worked equally hard to deny others the same rights. Nineteenth century

liberals were convinced that the lower classes were incapable of political decision making (Kahan 2003), while many social democrats at the end of the nineteenth century didn't understand why suffrage for women was worth fighting for (Nolan 2003). In Switzerland, a land with deep democratic traditions, it took until 1971 until the men of the country decided by referendum to give their female counterparts the vote.

What these examples show is that the democratic impulse can not be equated with the fight for human rights or the fight for universal suffrage. It is only when democracy becomes 'liberal' democracy that these ideals get a place in the scheme of things. What this implies is that our assumption, that liberal democracy is a unidimensional construct and that social progressives are the natural proponents of it, needs some qualification. It is to be expected that social progressives will be on the frontlines when it comes to expanding the vote to previously neglected groups, but it is less clear whether all social progressives are equally disposed to fight against elected officials who place themselves above the law. Especially when progressives sympathize with the political ideas of these officials, they might turn a blind eye to power abuse just like social conservatives might do when their people are in power. In other words, given the historical record of democratic societies, it is important to be aware of the multiple facets of democracy and to give these different aspects a place in our study.

The study

General design

In this study we tested the relationship between the share of migrants within states and congressional voting districts of the United States and the support for (1) socially progressive policies; (2) economically progressive policies; and (3) policies specifically meant to increase the inclusivity of the democratic franchise, to prevent elected officials from abusing their power, to curb the influence of money, and to make democracy more direct. We hypothesized that (1) and (3) but

not (2) would correlate positively with the share of migrants. While we assume that there is much overlap between (3) and (1), we included (3) to explicitly test the hypothesis that progress towards liberal democracy is positively influenced by migrants.

Study 1 – method

In this study we investigated our hypothesis that states with larger migrant stocks are more progressive socially but not economically. We do this for the period 1871-2014 whereby we used the percentage foreign born residents within each state as an indicator of the share of migrants within the population. These percentages have been collected by the census for each decade since 1850. Given the huge number of immigrants to the US during the settlement of the west up until the 1920s and the differences in popularity of different destinations, these percentages varied widely. A second indicator we used to assess the share of migrants is the aggregate net migration percentage of each state over the three decades preceding the decade in which the rollcall votes were cast. We calculated this number by using population change, births and deaths. Net migration is not always a good indicator for the share of migrants in a population, as highly cosmopolitan states such as New York can have negative net migration rates while still having a high share of migrants in their population. Nevertheless, given the fact that only few of the US states are really cosmopolitan and that negative migration rates more often mean that states are losing migrants to other states and/or countries, we used this indicator as well.

To determine the support of states for specific policies, we used the voting records of members of the House of Representatives which are available on voteview.com (Lewis et al. 2019). The rollcall votes in this dataset have been coded by different coding systems and we used these codes to create three different sets of votes. Our first two sets, respectively labeled with Clausen code 1 (government management) and Clausen code 2 (social welfare), concern economic issues (see <https://legacy.voteview.com/clacodes.htm> for a description). Our third set, Clausen code 4 (civil

liberties), concerns social issues. Rollcalls in any of these sets were only selected when the sum of the yea and nay votes was at least 100 and the yea/nay ratio was between 0.02 and 50, thus excluding the more unanimous votes. Our three sets of rollcall votes contained respectively 10526, 2312 and 1185 items.

To assess whether a vote indicated a conservative or a liberal stance, we used different methods. For the votes on economic issues, Clausen code 1 and Clausen code 2, we simply tested for the difference in voting between Democrats and Republicans. In our knowledge there is no decade in our timeperiod when Democrats were on average more conservative on economic issues than Republicans. For the third set, the votes on social issues ('civil liberties') or Clausen code 4, we tested for the difference in voting between congress members from three socially conservative states (Mississippi, Louisiana and Alabama) and three northern states (New York, Massachusetts and Connecticut). Because 'southernness' plays such a major role in all votes concerning civil rights and the choice of three non-cosmopolitan southern states to define social conservatism is thus problematic in a methodological sense, we retested all our hypotheses on a set from which all southern states, borderstates included, were excluded.

The dataset for the state level analysis thus consists of 48 states (Alaska and Hawaii were excluded because of late statehood). For each 10 year period, we have the average vote of the congress members of each state on each of the three sets/categories of votes, or more specifically those votes from the sets that were cast during this 10 year period. For each 10 year period, we have the percentage of foreign born state residents at the start of the period, and the aggregate net migration percentage of the thirty years preceding the start of the period. We added two control variables, namely 'urbanization' and 'party affiliation.' Urbanization is defined as the percentage of state residents living in urban areas (using definitions and numbers provided by census). Party affiliation is defined as the average party code (Democrats 100, Republicans 200) of congress members from a

state. As our basic units (states) do not change over time, the resulting dataset is a real panel data set with 15 time periods if we take the foreign born percentage as independent variable, and 12 timeperiods if we take the net migration as independent variable.

We made a 3D interactive visual dataset of our state level model that can be found on <http://www.pip29.com>. This dataset allows the user to inspect all datapoints individually, to choose different view angles, and to make all sorts of subselections (states, regions, timeperiods, independent variables, dependent variables and time lag).

Study 1 – results

In our datasheet we used the following four dependent variables:

avvote_clausen1 – average vote of a state on issues dealing with ‘Government management’.

Higher scores indicate economic progressivism.

avvote_clausen2 – average vote of a state on issues dealing with ‘Social welfare’. Higher scores indicate economic progressivism.

avvote_clausen4 – average vote of a state on issues dealing with ‘Civil liberties’. Higher scores indicate social progressivism.

We used the following four independent variables:

percfb – percentage of the state population born in another country at the start of the time period

netmighist3decades – the aggregate net migration percentage of the 3 decades preceding the given time period

percfb_lag3 – like percfb but 30 years back in time

netmighist3decades_lag3 – like netmighist3decades but thirty years back in time

To control for 'southernness,' we repeated all testing with a dataset from which all states that once had slavery (including the so called border states) were excluded. The results are the following (see next page):

Test results for the states dataset (all states included)

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
percfb	-0.267*** (0.061)	-0.046 (0.075)	0.772*** (0.095)
urbanization	0.086*** (0.020)	0.113*** (0.025)	-0.015 (0.030)
partyaffiliation	-0.469*** (0.016)	-0.435*** (0.020)	0.088*** (0.024)
Constant	121.494*** (2.465)	112.511*** (3.001)	26.747*** (3.600)
Observations	694	694	694
R2	0.621	0.460	0.164
Adjusted R2	0.619	0.458	0.160
F Statistic	1,128.701***	588.807***	134.968***

Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.01

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
netmighist3decades	-0.088*** (0.019)	-0.066*** (0.024)	0.113*** (0.028)
urbanization	0.146*** (0.025)	0.211*** (0.033)	-0.172*** (0.040)
partyaffiliation	-0.502*** (0.017)	-0.479*** (0.022)	0.106*** (0.025)
Constant	121.023*** (2.823)	112.786*** (3.593)	38.775*** (4.265)
Observations	571	571	571
R2	0.631	0.495	0.097
Adjusted R2	0.629	0.492	0.092
F Statistic	970.249***	555.790***	60.678***

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
percfb_lag3	0.062 (0.056)	0.175** (0.068)	1.020*** (0.084)
urbanization	0.098*** (0.023)	0.154*** (0.028)	0.051 (0.034)
partyaffiliation	-0.511*** (0.017)	-0.480*** (0.021)	0.054** (0.023)
Constant	123.893*** (2.603)	114.343*** (3.135)	24.259*** (3.613)
Observations	642	642	642
R2	0.607	0.474	0.246
Adjusted R2	0.605	0.471	0.242
F Statistic	986.118***	574.633***	207.875***

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
netmighist3decades_lag3	0.016 (0.021)	0.026 (0.024)	0.144*** (0.025)
urbanization	0.008 (0.040)	0.119** (0.049)	0.020 (0.053)
partyaffiliation	-0.470*** (0.022)	-0.420*** (0.025)	-0.094*** (0.025)
Constant	126.429*** (3.676)	111.060*** (4.254)	54.107*** (4.438)
Observations	429	429	429
R2	0.535	0.406	0.104
Adjusted R2	0.531	0.402	0.098
F Statistic	488.143***	291.043***	49.425***

Test results for the states dataset (southern states excluded)

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
percfb	-0.395*** (0.073)	-0.256*** (0.083)	0.530*** (0.107)
urbanization	0.053* (0.029)	0.018 (0.033)	-0.196*** (0.043)
partyaffiliation	-0.514*** (0.024)	-0.538*** (0.027)	0.002 (0.030)
Constant	133.616*** (4.644)	139.254*** (5.264)	58.231*** (5.797)
Observations	454	454	454
R2	0.595	0.530	0.150
Adjusted R2	0.592	0.527	0.145
F Statistic	660.017***	507.890***	79.302***
Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.01			

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
netmighist3decades	-0.118*** (0.022)	-0.108*** (0.026)	0.081*** (0.030)
urbanization	0.087** (0.036)	0.111** (0.043)	-0.414*** (0.052)
partyaffiliation	-0.553*** (0.024)	-0.562*** (0.028)	0.0001 (0.031)
Constant	134.763*** (4.981)	135.227*** (5.785)	77.093*** (6.373)
Observations	379	379	379
R2	0.630	0.567	0.184
Adjusted R2	0.627	0.563	0.178
F Statistic	638.820***	490.905***	84.712***

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
percfb_lag3	-0.060 (0.072)	-0.022 (0.082)	0.741*** (0.099)
urbanization	0.063* (0.035)	0.066 (0.041)	-0.178*** (0.051)
partyaffiliation	-0.541*** (0.025)	-0.558*** (0.028)	0.010 (0.028)
Constant	133.773*** (5.238)	136.753*** (5.780)	54.906*** (6.205)
Observations	420	420	420
R2	0.571	0.533	0.246
Adjusted R2	0.568	0.529	0.241
F Statistic	553.979***	474.405***	135.488***

Dependent variable:			
	avvote_clausen1	avvote_clausen2	avvote_clausen4
netmighist3decades_lag3	-0.015 (0.023)	-0.010 (0.025)	0.096*** (0.025)
urbanization	-0.071 (0.050)	-0.063 (0.057)	-0.283*** (0.062)
partyaffiliation	-0.491*** (0.027)	-0.484*** (0.029)	-0.180*** (0.028)
Constant	137.571*** (5.759)	136.712*** (6.178)	93.247*** (6.127)
Observations	285	285	285
R2	0.533	0.497	0.264
Adjusted R2	0.528	0.492	0.256
F Statistic	320.288***	277.758***	100.787***

The results of this state level panel data analysis can be interpreted as follows:

- More migrants, measured either as the percentage foreign born residents or the net migration over three preceding decades, correlates with economic conservatism and social progressivism.
- The effect of migrants on social progressivism increases when a time lag of thirty years is applied.
- The effect of migrants on economic conservatism decreases and gets insignificant when a time lag of thirty years is applied.
- The effect of migrants on social progressivism is both stronger and more durable than their effect on economic conservatism.

Study 2 – method

In study 1 we analyzed 48 states over a period of 150 years. In study 2 we repeat this analysis on the level of congressional voting districts. Based on historical congressional district maps and county level net migration data, we managed to piece together a data set in which we combined the net migration rates of historical voting districts with the voting behaviour of the members of congress representing these districts. For this set we limited the number of states to eight (Alabama, Arkansas, Georgia, Indiana, Iowa, Kansas, Kentucky and Mississippi). These states belong to the group of states with the historically lowest foreign born population, which means that negative migration rates of voting districts probably mean that all the residents of such districts have lived there for many generations and that migrant stock is absent. Our hypothesis here is that these districts where many leave and few arrive are socially more conservative than districts with more positive net migration rates within the same state.

The dataset we created is, unfortunately, not as good as the data set for the state level analysis. In the first place the time period is much shorter because the net migration rates on county level are only available since the 1950s (Winkler et al 2013). Because we used three decades of net migration as our independent variable, we could only use voting data generated since the 1980s. We could

have created additional county level net migration rates for the period 1940-1950 but we chose not to do so. In the second place, the net migration rates are imprecise for those voting districts that contain parted counties. Counties with many residents are often split between several voting districts. To limit the damage, we excluded voting districts in which less than 80% of the population lived in non-divided counties. In the third place, this data set is no panel data set because voting districts change over time due to redistricting. We can do linear regression over a large number of districts in three different decades but not more than that.

Study 2 – results

The statistical results below rely on the same sets of rollcall votes as the state level analysis. The control variables we use are ‘partycode’ (100 is democrat, 200 is republican) and the average vote of the whole state for the same set of votes. This second control variable is used to be able to compare the position of a district relative to other districts in the same state. The results are the following:

District level analysis

Dependent variable:	
avvote_clausen1	
netmighist3decades	-0.111*** (0.022)
partycode	-0.416*** (0.009)
avstate_clausen1	0.583*** (0.020)
Constant	83.712*** (2.015)

Observations	716
R2	0.883
Adjusted R2	0.883
Residual Std. Error	10.703 (df = 712)
F Statistic	1,795.700*** (df = 3; 712)
=====	
Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.01	

Dependent variable:	
avvote_clausen2	
netmighist3decades	-0.127*** (0.026)
partycode	-0.439*** (0.010)
avstate_clausen2	0.576*** (0.023)
Constant	87.690*** (2.323)

Observations	716
R2	0.857
Adjusted R2	0.856
Residual Std. Error	12.461 (df = 712)
F Statistic	1,418.495*** (df = 3; 712)
=====	

Dependent variable:	
avvote_clausen4	
netmighist3decades	-0.086*** (0.026)
partycode	-0.240*** (0.010)
avstate_clausen4	0.713*** (0.035)
Constant	45.187*** (2.087)

Observations	716
R2	0.688
Adjusted R2	0.687
Residual Std. Error	12.173 (df = 712)
F Statistic	522.963*** (df = 3; 712)
=====	

The results of study 2 suggest that, within states, a positive correlation exists between net migration rate and economic conservatism. This is the same result as found in the state level analysis of study 1, and it means that the districts with high net outmigration are more willing to accept a bigger role of government. With regards to social conservatism, it seems that the districts with the higher net migration rates are more socially conservative than those districts that suffer from high net outmigration. This is a somewhat remarkable result, suggesting that within states, those districts that have lost many people are nevertheless not as socially conservative as those districts within the state that have more balanced net migration rates.

Study 3 – method

In this study we work again at the level of states as we did in study 1. The aim of this third analysis is to measure the correlation between the number of long distance migrants in a state and the voting behaviour of the state representatives with regards to those issues that have been somewhat fundamental in the development of American democracy. Because we noticed in study 1 that the use of ‘percentage foreign born residents with a lag of 30 years’ as independent variable gave the most pronounced effects, we will only use this one as independent variable. It must be noted that in this study we will pick individual rollcalls and do a separate linear regression for each of them. This seems to be a safe option, as we must assume that the votes that we analyze tap a variety of political sentiments.

In total we picked 11 votes cast between 1908 and 2002. Five of these votes resulted directly in new amendments to the constitution, which arguably gives them historical importance. Of the six other votes, four are about the regulation of lobbying and campaign finance, one is the 1939 Hatch Act and one is the Congressional Budget and Impoundment Control Act of 1974. All votes except the one from 1908 have wikipedia pages dedicated to them. Ordered by topic the list looks as follows:

Universal suffrage

- (1) May 21, 1919 – Suffrage for women, vote leading to the 19th Amendment.
- (2) August 27, 1962 – Abolish poll tax, helping southern blacks to vote. Vote leads to the 24th Amendment.
- (3) March 23, 1971 – Lower the voting age to from 21 to 18, vote leads to the 26th Amendment.

Limiting the powers of executives

- (4) July 20, 1939 – Hatch Act, meant to prevent elected officials from abuse of their office.
- (5) February 6, 1949 – Limit the number of times a president can be elected, vote leading to the 22nd Amendment.
- (6) December 5, 1973 – Congressional Budget and Impoundment Control Act of 1974, limiting presidential powers over budgets.

Direct democracy

- (7) April 13, 1911 – Direct election of senators, vote leading to the 17th Amendment.

Campaign contributions, voter registration and lobbying

- (8) May 22, 1908 – H.R. 20112, bill to make campaign contributions more transparent and to prevent fraud in voter registration.
- (9) November 11, 1971 – Federal Election Campaign Act of 1971
- (10) September 29, 1994 – Lobbying Disclosure Act of 1995
- (11) February 14, 2002 – Bipartisan Campaign Reform Act of 2002

Study 3 – results

The results are the following:

votes related to universal suffrage

Dependent variable:			
	women suffrage 1919	abolish polltax 1962	lower voting age 1971
% foreign born lag 30	1.490*** (0.333)	2.568*** (0.627)	0.182 (0.271)
Constant	55.146*** (6.702)	49.478*** (7.626)	94.238*** (2.506)
Observations	45	45	48
R2	0.318	0.281	0.010
Adjusted R2	0.302	0.264	-0.012
Residual Std. Error	27.230 (df = 43)	31.639 (df = 43)	10.922 (df = 46)
F Statistic	20.030*** (df = 1; 43)	16.796*** (df = 1; 43)	0.453 (df = 1; 46)
Note: *p<0.1; **p<0.05; ***p<0.01			

votes related to limiting the power of elected officials

Dependent variable:			
	Hatch Act 1939	limit pres. terms 1947	Budget control 1974
% foreign born lag 30	0.579 (0.507)	1.100** (0.435)	0.092 (0.241)
Constant	56.940*** (8.692)	54.316*** (7.491)	95.191*** (2.229)
Observations	47	48	48
R2	0.028	0.122	0.003
Adjusted R2	0.007	0.103	-0.019
Residual Std. Error	35.315 (df = 45)	30.075 (df = 46)	9.712 (df = 46)
F Statistic	1.308 (df = 1; 45)	6.395** (df = 1; 46)	0.145 (df = 1; 46)

vote related to direct democracy

Dependent variable:	
	direct election senators
% foreign born lag 30	-0.150 (0.242)
Constant	96.048*** (4.764)
Observations	43
R2	0.009
Adjusted R2	-0.015
Residual Std. Error	18.653 (df = 41)
F Statistic	0.387 (df = 1; 41)

vote related to regulation of campaign contributions, voter registration and lobbying

Dependent variable:				
	1908	1971	1994	2002
% foreign born lag 30	1.706*** (0.393)	0.681 (0.480)	2.733*** (0.862)	5.469*** (1.348)
Constant	33.022*** (8.600)	87.054*** (4.443)	66.281*** (4.473)	36.296*** (5.812)
Observations	44	47	48	47
R2	0.310	0.043	0.179	0.268
Adjusted R2	0.294	0.022	0.162	0.251
Residual Std. Error	35.514 (df = 42)	19.327 (df = 45)	19.232 (df = 46)	25.285 (df = 45)
F Statistic	18.888*** (df = 1; 42)	2.019 (df = 1; 45)	10.061*** (df = 1; 46)	16.451*** (df = 1; 45)

The results of study 3, concerning the relationship between migrant population and rollcall votes that shaped American democracy can be summarized as follows:

- in only one of the eleven selected rollcalls a (insignificant) negative correlation between support for the bill and migrant stock was found, namely the vote concerning the direct election of senators.
- The largest difference in voting between states with low and high migrant stock was found in votes related to universal suffrage (women and blacks, not 18-year olds) and to regulation of campaign contributions, voter registration and lobbying.
- Voting for bills and acts concerning the limiting of executive power did not correlate significantly with the size of migrant stock.

Discussion

In this article we tested the hypothesis that migrants exert a positive influence on the development of liberal democracy. Our data shows a strong positive correlation between the share of long-distance migrants in the population of a state and social progressivism, and a negative correlation between the share of migrants and economic progressivism. It suggests that immigrants to the United States tend to be libertarians. With respect to our specific indicators of liberal democracy, we found a strong positive correlation between the share of long distance migrants and votes for universal suffrage and regulating campaign contributions, lobbying and voter registration, and a not-significant but nevertheless positive correlation with votes for bills and amendments meant to check the power of the executive. As far as we were able to measure the effects of short-distance migration, we only found lower levels of economic progressivism in voting districts with positive net migration rates. The effect of long distance migration is thus different and more pronounced than the effect of short distance migration.

These findings correspond with the underlying mechanism we proposed. Big Five personality trait openness to experience predicts both migratory behaviour and social progressivism, while extraversion predicts both migration and, at least according to some studies, economic conservatism. According to Jokela (2009), who studied migration patterns in the United States, short distance migration (within states) is better predicted by extraversion while long distance migration is better predicted by openness to experience. This might explain why we didn't find heightened social progressivism in voting districts with high net migration rates in states with low shares of foreign born residents.

An interesting outcome is that the effect of foreign born residents on the social progressivism of a state increases when a time lag is applied. This means that the arrival of long distance migrants has a very durable effect on the social progressivism of a state. An explanation for this time lag effect might be that the unborn children of migrants are as socially progressive as their parents, due to both genetic and social influence. If these children experience less existential threat than their parents, they might even be more socially progressive, as predicted by modernization theory. Another explanation might be that as these immigrants get older and develop larger networks, their political influence within their communities increases. A third reason might be that as these migrants get older, they vote more frequently. Whatever the reason, the positive time lag effect is only found for social progressivism and not for economic conservatism.

Our findings might contradict the perception that in today's world migrants, more specifically those from socially conservative Islamic countries, bring conservative social attitudes with them that are detrimental to liberal democracy (Koopmans 2015). This would suggest that the American case that we studied is exceptional and cannot be generalized to the 21st century. Nevertheless, although it would require data from other parts of the world to get more certainty, our hypothesis would still be that today's migrants are as good for liberal democracy as yesterday's migrants, simply because of

the correlation between dispositional openness to experience and long distance migration. The conservatism of migrants as it is broadly perceived might not be the result of some underlying disposition but simply a reflex caused by economic and other anxiety, as postulated by modernization theory. We should keep in mind that migrants to the United States, such as the Irish who arrived in droves during the 19th century, were seen by many natives as a threat to American democratic values as well.

While we found a correlation between *immigration* and liberal democracy, it is interesting that others have observed a correlation between *emigration* and liberal democracy. Several studies have found that countries that send people to western democratic countries become better liberal democracies themselves (Docquier et al 2011; Batista and Vicente 2011). The proposed mechanism is that the emigrants, who often stay in touch with friends and family or who even return to their native country later in life, function as agents of cultural transfer. An indication that this is indeed the mechanism at work is that this positive effect is absent when people emigrate to countries with a more authoritarian culture, such as the Gulf states (Tuccio, Wahba Hamdouch 2016).

While we don't deny that there might indeed be a positive effect of emigration, our study suggest that no country should be happy to see its people emigrate, at least not in large numbers. Many emigrants do not return and in the long run, as ties soften, a country loses those segments of the population most disposed towards social progressivism and liberal democracy. In this respect there are parallels with the concept of 'brain drain.' Over longer time periods we would suggest that it is hard to find examples of countries that saw both a substantial outpouring of people while still being able to develop greater wealth and freedom, and our study suggests that as long as countries have more emigrants than immigrants, probably the opposite will happen, at least when compared to countries with more balanced migration numbers.

Our explanation for the success of liberal democracy can be compared to the four explanations that were mentioned at the beginning of this article, namely the modernization hypothesis, the critical juncture hypothesis, the cultural hypothesis and the pathogen prevalence hypothesis. All of these carry in them the implication that migration and the formation of new groups is a prerequisite for social, cultural and economic modernization, but none of them points to migration as a cause in itself. Looking at human history, we can't find many important transformational groups that did not consist of migrants and/or incessant travelers. Migration, almost naturally, results in the kind of assortative mixing that is required for progress, and the development of liberal democracy is among those sorts of innovation that fits migrants better than non-migrants. If mankind will ever successfully colonize Mars, we predict that Mars might well become the most socially progressive human society in the universe, just like the United States arguably was around 1900.

A last thought with respect to political culture and migration comes to mind when reading Edward Banfield's 1958 classic 'The Moral Basis of a Backward Society'. In this oft-cited book, Banfield describes the southern Italian village Chiaromonte as he found it in the 1950s. What he observes is a culture that lacks all forms of human association except for the nuclear family. The church is empty, there is no interest in education or technical innovation, people are too timid to stand up against the local notables, people vote for the party that promises them a better life only to get disappointed over and over again, and their main ambition in life is to save money to spend on a traditionally prescribed dowry for their children. Banfield and others have argued that this situation is to be explained by culture, and that this specific southern culture Italian lacked social capital, a prerequisite for democracy and good governance. What we see is something different, namely a village without people with high scores on Big Five traits extraversion (sociability, gregariousness, assertiveness) and openness to experience (learning, creativity, non-conformism). During the 19th and 20th century, southern Italy saw an unprecedented outpouring of people to the industrial centers of northern Italy, to Western Europe and to the New World (Ben-Ghiat & Hom 2015). Those

emigrants were much better disposed to develop social capital and liberal democracy than the people they left behind. Based on our findings we would say that it is migration, and not culture, that explains culture.

Supplementary materials

Interactive 3D model containing states-level data (study 1 and 3): <http://www.pip29.com>

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